MUHAMMAD IMRAN	BT406 Research Methodology & Skill Enhancement
CURRENT QUESTIONS SOLVED	FINAL TERM SEPTEMBER 2020
QUESTIONS 71	

1. Define historiography? 2 marks

Historiography is the method of doing historical research or of gathering and analyzing historical evidence.

2. Explain Validity problems in secondary data?

Validity problems

- ✓ Validity problems occur when the researcher's theoretical definition does not match that of the government agency or organization that collected the information. Official policies and procedures specify definitions for official statistics. For example, a researcher defines a *work* injury as including minor cuts, bruises, and sprains that occur on the job, but the official definition in government reports only includes injuries that require a visit to a physician or hospital. Another example occurs when a researcher defines people *unemployed* if they would work if a good job was available, if they have to work part-time when they want full-time work, and if they have given up looking for work.

- ✓ Another validity problem arises when official statistics are a proxy for a construct in which the researcher is really interested. This is necessary because the researcher cannot collect original data. For example, the researcher wants to know how many people have been robbed, so he or she uses police statistics on robbery arrests as a proxy. But the measure is not entirely valid because many robberies are not reported to the police, and reported robberies do not always result in an arrest.

- ✓ Another validity problem arises because the researcher lacks control over how information is collected. All information, even that in official government reports, is originally gathered by people in bureaucracies as part of their job. A researcher depends on them for collecting organizing, reporting, and publishing data accurately. Systematic errors in collecting the initial information (e.g., census people who avoid poor neighborhoods and make-up information, or people who put a false age on their ID card); errors in organizing and reporting information (e.g., police department that is sloppy about filing crime reports and loses some); errors in publishing information (e.g., a typographical error in a table) all reduce measurement validity.

3. Define Parameter 3 marks

A parameter is the summary description of a given variable in a population. The mean income of all families in a city and the age distribution of the city's population are parameters. An important part portion of survey research involves the estimation of population parameters on the basis of sample observation.

4. Define Statistic

A statistic is the summary description of a given variable in a survey sample. Thus, the mean income computed from the survey sample and the age distribution of that sample are statistics. Sample statistics are used to make estimates of the population parameters.

5. Enlist 6 features of theoretical framework?

1. Make an inventory of variables
2. Specify the direction of relationship
3. Logic for the proposed relationship
4. Make an inventory of propositions
5. Arrange propositions sequentially
6. Present schematic diagram

6. What is research (2)

the systematic investigation into and study of materials and sources in order to establish facts and reach new conclusions.

Research is simply the process of finding solutions to a problem after through study and analysis of the situational factors. It is gathering information needed to answer a question, and thereby help in solving a problem

7. Purposive Sampling

- Researcher lays down the criteria for the subjects.
- Also called as *judgmental or expert opinion sample*. Selection depends upon the judgment of selector.

Depending upon the type of topic, the researcher lays down the criteria for the subjects to be included in the sample. Whoever meets that criteria could be selected in the sample? The researcher might select such cases or might provide the criteria to somebody else and leave it to his/her judgment for the actual selection of the subjects. That is why such a sample is also called as **judgmental or expert opinion sample.** For example a researcher is interested in studying students who are enrolled in a course on research methods, are highly regular, are frequent participants in the class discussions, and often come with new ideas

8. Main point of conceptual model?

Conceptual Model

- Researcher elaborates the relationship among the variables.
- Explains the logic underlying these relationships.
- Describes the nature and direction of the relationships

9. what are the criteria of the sample design (5marks)

Appropriate Sample Design

Depends upon a number of criteria like:

1. Degree of accuracy.
2. Resources.
3. Advance knowledge of population.
4. National vs. local project. Geographic proximity of population.
5. Need for statistical analysis. Projecting beyond the sample or the sample only.

Degree of Accuracy

Selecting a representative sample is, of course, important to all researchers. However, the error may vary from project to project, especially when cost saving or another benefit may be a trade-off for reduction in accuracy.

Resources

The costs associated with the different sampling techniques vary tremendously. If the researcher's financial and human resources are restricted, this limitation of resources will eliminate certain methods. For a graduate student working on a master's thesis, conducting a national survey is almost always out of the question because of limited resources. Managers usually weigh the cost of research versus the value of information often will opt to save money by using non-probability sampling design rather than make the decision to conduct no research at all.

Advance Knowledge of the Population

Advance knowledge of population characteristics, such as the availability of lists of population members, is an important criterion. A lack of adequate list may automatically rule out any type of probability sampling.

National versus Local Project

Geographic proximity of population elements will influence sample design. When population elements are unequally distributed geographically, a cluster sampling may become more attractive.

Need for Statistical Analysis

The need for statistical projections based on the sample is often a criterion. Non-probability sampling techniques do not allow researcher to use statistical analysis to project the data beyond the sample.

10. Write a note on several ways protect the confidentiality research (5)

Several ways to protect the confidentiality

- Obtaining signed nondisclosure documents.
- Restricting access to respondent's identification
- Revealing respondent information only with written consent.
- Restricting access to data instruments where the respondent is identified.
- Nondisclosure of data subsets.

11. Characteristic of scientific method?

Special Features of Scientific Method

1. Empirical

Observable phenomenon

2. Verifiable

- Use senses to confirm or refute the observation.
- "Sensory experiences"
- Intuitions and revelations are out.
- Replicability needed.

3. Cumulative

- Knowledge grows.
- Need not start from scratch.

4.Deterministic

- Explains why things happen?
- Parsimony

Minimum No. of variables that explain variance.

5. Ethical and ideological neutrality

- ✓ Value free.
- ✓ Objectivity.
- ✓ Is it possible?

6. Statistical generalization

7. Rationalism

- ✓ Employ rigorous rules of logic.
- ✓ Argumentation.

12. Validity of experiments .5 marks

Validity in Experiments

- Validity refers to confidence in cause and effect relationship.
- Internal validity is high in Laboratory experiments.
- External validity (generalizability) is not sure.
- Validity refers to confidence in cause and effect relationship.
- Internal validity is high in Laboratory experiments. Controlled environment.
- External validity (generalizability) is not sure. Organizational or field setting. Several confounding variables. Field experiments have more external validity but less internal validity.
- First have lab experiments then test in field setting.

Experiments are judged by two measures. The first, internal validity indicates whether the independent variable was the sole cause of the change in the dependent variable. It implies the researcher's ability to eliminate alternative explanations of the dependent variable. Variables, other than the treatment, that affect the dependent variable are threats to internal validity. They threaten the researcher's ability to say that the treatment was the true causal factor producing change in the dependent variable. The second measure, external validity, indicates the extent to which the results of the experiment are applicable in the real world.

Internal validity is high in the laboratory experiment, reason being the control over all the confounding factors. External validity (generalizability) is not sure because of the effect of variety of factors. Field experiments have more external validity but less internal validity because it is closer to the real situations.

13. Define double blind experiment

Double blind experiment: to control experimenter expectancy. Both the subjects and experimenters are blind to details of experiment.

The ***double-blind experiment*** is designed to control experimenter expectancy. In it, people who have direct contact with subjects do not know the details of the hypothesis or the treatment. It is ***double*** blind because both the subjects and those in contact with them are blind to details of the experiment. For example, a researcher wants to see if new drug is effective. Using capsules of three colors – green, yellow, and pink -- the researcher puts the new drug in the yellow capsule, puts an old drug in the pink one, and take the green capsule a ***placebo*** – a false treatment that appears to be real (e.g., a sugar capsule without any physical effects). Assistants who give the capsules and record the effects do not know which color contains the new drug. Only another person who does not deal with subjects directly knows which colored capsule contains the drug and examines the results.

14. Write three types of control

Three types of controls

- Manipulation: control over stimulus/treatment.
- Holding conditions constant i.e. control over the environment (the confounding factors).
- Control over the composition of groups – balancing. Find out the way that individual differences do not confound the X variable under investigation. Randomization is the answer.

15. Challenges in case study

Challenges:

- The case study researcher must decide which bounded system to study
- The researcher must consider whether to study a single case or multiple cases.
- Selecting the case requires that the researcher establish a rationale for his or her purposeful sampling strategy for selecting the case and for gathering information about the case.

16. Explain 2 Types of grounded theory - (5marks)

Types of grounded theory studies:

- The two popular approaches to grounded theory are the systematic procedures of Strauss and Corbin (1990, 1998) and the constructivist approach of Charmaz (2005, 2006).
- In the more systematic, the investigator seeks to systematically develop a theory that explains process, action, or interaction on a topic.
- Charmaz"s approach is known as the constructivist grounded theory method as it adheres to a constructivist philosophical approach, wherein both the researcher and participants mutually co-construct meaning during data collection and analysis.

17. Note on sampling unit?

Sampling Unit

- That element or set of elements considered for selection in some stage of sampling.
- Sampling can be single stage or multistage. Simple or complex.
- In single stage, sampling units are the same as elements.

- In multistage, different levels of sampling units may be employed. Sampling of Mohallahs, the of households, and then adults. Primary, secondary, final.

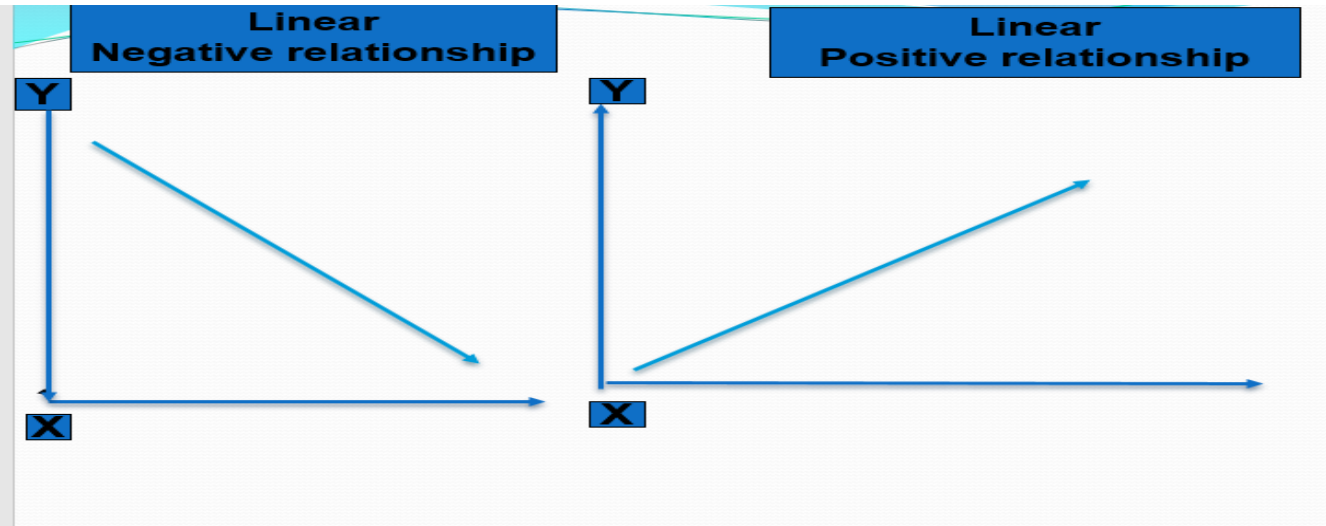
A sampling unit is that element or set of elements considered for selection in some stage of sampling. Sampling may be done in single stage or in multiple stages. In a simple, single-stage sample, the sampling units are the same as the elements. In more complex samples, however, different levels of sampling units may be employed. For example, a researcher may select a sample of *Mohallahs* in a city, and then select a sample of households from the selected *Mohallahs*, and finally may select a sample of adults from the selected households. The sampling units of these three stages of sampling are respectively *Mohallah*, households, and adults, of which the last of these are the elements. More specifically, the terms "primary sampling units," "secondary sampling units," and "final sampling units" would be used to designate the successive stages.

18. Types of case study?

Types of case studies:

- In single instrumental case study, the researcher focuses on an issue or concern, and then selects one bounded case to illustrate this issue.
- In collective/multiple case study, the one issue or concern is again selected, but the inquirer selects multiple case studies to illustrate the issue.
- In intrinsic case study, focus is on the case itself because the case presents an unusual or unique situation.

19. what is linear negative and linear positive relationship (2marks)



20. What is communication analysis in research method?

Communication analysis

- Analyzing the content of text.
- Content refers to words, meanings, pictures, symbols, ideas, themes, messages.
- Text is anything written, visual, or spoken
- Books, newspapers, advertisements, speeches, official documents, photographs, films, articles of clothing, works of art.

21. Source of concept sampling?

Sources of Concepts:

- We create concepts from personal experience. Mass, speed, family.
- We borrow from other disciplines.
- We develop a specialized jargon or terminology for a particular subject.

22. Define sample bias

Only well educated people will write. Views of poorly educated people are not there.

23. Differentiate between descriptive and exploratory research also write their goals separately ?5

a. Exploratory Research:

- Initial research conducted to clarify and define the nature of the problem. Exploring a new topic.
- Specifically, there could be number of goals of exploratory research.

Goals of Exploratory Research:

- Become familiar with the topic. Develop well grounded picture of the situation.
- Develop tentative theories.
- Determine the feasibility of study.
- Formulate questions and refine issues for more systematic inquiry.
- Develop techniques and a sense of direction for future research

b. Descriptive Research:

- Research designed to describe characteristics of the phenomenon understudy.

- Helps in diagnostic analysis

Goals of Descriptive Research:

- Describe the situation/characteristics. Provide an accurate profile of a group.
- Give a verbal or numerical picture (%).
- Present basic background information.
- Create a set of categories or classify.
- Clarify sequence, set of stages.
- Focus on 'who', 'what', 'when', 'where' and 'how' but not on 'why'.

24. define field research

- Observation can be participant or non-participant.
- In participant observation the researcher directly observes and participates in small scale social settings in the present time.
- Also referred to as field research, ethnography, or anthropological study.
- Direct, face to face interaction with "real people" in a natural setting.
- A group who interact with each other on regular basis in a fixed setting: street corner, tea shop, a club, nomads, village.

25. what is dependent variable and independent variable (2marks)

Dependent and Independent Variable

- DV → Outcome variable → effect variable (Y). Variation in Y is influenced by some other factor (s)
- IV → (X) that influences the Y.
- The variance in Y is accounted for by X.

Explaining X and Y variables

X variable	Y variable
• Presumed cause • Stimulus • Predicted from • Antecedent • Manipulated • Predictor	• Presumed effect • Response • Predicted to • Consequence • Measured outcome • Criterion

26. What is case study research explain with its procedure (10marks)

What is case study research?

- Study of an issue explored through one or more cases within a bounded system over time, through detailed, in-depth data collection involving multiple sources of information
- it as a methodology, a type of design in qualitative research, or an object of study, as well as a product of the inquiry.
- Espouses both quantitative and qualitative approaches to case study development and discusses explanatory, exploratory, and descriptive qualitative case studies.

Types of case studies:

- In single instrumental case study, the researcher focuses on an issue or concern, and then selects one bounded case to illustrate this issue.
- In collective/multiple case study, the one issue or concern is again selected, but the inquirer selects multiple case studies to illustrate the issue.
- In intrinsic case study, focus is on the case itself because the case presents an unusual or unique situation.

Procedures for conducting a case study:

- First, researchers determine if a case study approach is appropriate to the research problem
- Researchers next need to identify their case or cases
- The data collection in case study research is typically extensive, drawing on multiple sources of information
- The type of analysis of these data can be a holistic analysis of the entire case or an embedded analysis of a specific aspect of the case.
- the researcher reports the meaning of the case, whether that meaning comes an instrumental case or an intrinsic case

27. Ethnography and entho- methodology (2)

Ethnography and Ethno-methodology

- Ethno means people distinct by their culture. Graphy refers to description. Understanding the culture of people.
- Methodology: how people create reality as well as its interpretation. Meanings attached to a reality.

28. Data collection method?

Data collection methods. Primary or secondary data used. How primary data were collected – survey, experiment, observation. Multiple techniques used – triangulation.

29. Role of recorder in focus group. 10

Focus Group Discussion (FGD):

- A focus group discussion is a group discussion of 6-12 persons
- Guided by a facilitator,
- Participants talk freely and spontaneously about a certain issue.

The purpose of FGD:

- To obtain in-depth information on concepts, perceptions, and ideas of the group.
- More than an question-answer interaction.
- Group members discuss the topic among themselves.

Functions of the Recorder

 Keep a record of the content as well as emotional reactions and nature of group interactions.
 Record the following: -
Date, time, and place. –
Names and characteristics of participants.
- Description of group dynamics (level of participation, presence of a dominant participant, level of interest).
- Opinions of the participants, as far as possible in their own words, especially the key statements. – Emotional aspects (reluctance, strong feelings attached to certain opinions). – Vocabulary used.

 Assist the facilitator by drawing his/her attention to missed topics or missed comments from the participants. Help the facilitator resolve the conflict if necessary. Make sure a copy of the list of topics and key probe questions is available and referred to during the FGD.

30. Participant and non Participant observation (10)

Participant Observation

- Participant observation is immersion in a culture. Ideally, the ethnographer lives and works in the community for six months to a year or more, learning the language and seeing patterns of behaviour over time. Long-term residence helps the researcher

internalize the basic beliefs, fears, hopes and expectations of the people under study. (1989:45)

Nonparticipant Observation

- Non-participant observation involves merely watching what is happening and recording events on the spot.
- "Non-participant observation exists only where interactions are viewed through hidden camera and recorder or through one-way mirror" (1984: 143).

31. differentiate between Participants and non participants observation(5marks)

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32. What is case study ?Explain 3 characteristics?

Case Study

- A comprehensive description and analysis of a single situation or number of specific situations i.e. cases.
- An intensive description and analysis of a case.
- Often use qualitative approach to explore the case in as rich a detail as possible.
- Explore new areas of inquiry.

33. What is narrative research & phenomenological study?

Narrative research

- "Narrative is understood as a spoken or written text giving an account of an event/action or series of events/actions, chronologically connected".
- The procedures for implementing this research consist of focusing on studying one or two individuals, gathering data through the collection of their stories, reporting individual experiences, and chronologically ordering (or using life course stages) the meaning of those experiences.

Phenomenology

- A *phenomenological study* describes the meaning for several individuals of their *lived experiences* of a concept or a phenomenon.
- The basic purpose of phenomenology is to reduce individual experiences with a phenomenon to a description of the universal essence.
-

34. diff between qualitative and quantitatively 3

Qualitative and Quantitative Research

- Differ but complement each other.
- Qualitative research produces *soft data*: impressions, words, sentences, photos, symbols. Interpretative approach. Non-linear approach (spiral)
- Quantitative research produces *hard data*: numbers. Follow positivist approach. Speak the language of variables and hypotheses. Emphasis on precise measurement of variables and testing hypotheses. Look for causality. Linear approach (sequential steps)

35. reference and bibliography?

A bibliography is the listing of the works that are relevant to the topic of research interest arranged in alphabetical order of the last names of authors.

A reference list is a subset of the bibliography, which includes details of all the citations used in the literature survey and elsewhere in the report, arranged again, in the alphabetical order of the last names of authors.

36. Difference between cross sectional and longitudinal studies 5

Cross-Sectional Studies are carried out once and represent a snapshot of one point in time. Data are collected just once, perhaps over a period of days or weeks or months, in order to answer the research question.

Longitudinal Studies are repeated over an extended period. The advantage of longitudinal studies is that it can track changes over time. For example, the researcher might want to study employees' behavior before and after a change in the top management, so as to know what effects the change accomplished. Here, because data are gathered at two different points in

time, the study is not cross- sectional or of the one-shot kind, but is carried longitudinally across a period of time. Such studies, as when data on the dependent variable are gathered at two or more points in time to answer the research question, are called longitudinal. Longitudinal studies can be *panel studies* and *cohort studies* which were discussed earlier.

Cross-sectional study

Both the cross-sectional and the longitudinal studies are observational studies. This means that researchers record information about their subjects without manipulating the study environment. In our study, we would simply measure the cholesterol levels of daily walkers and non-walkers along with any other characteristics that might be of interest to us. We would not influence nonwalkers to take up that activity, or advise daily walkers to modify their behaviour. In short, we'd try not to interfere.

The defining feature of a cross-sectional study is that it can compare different population groups at a single point in time. Think of it in terms of taking a snapshot. Findings are drawn from whatever fits into the frame.

To return to our example, we might choose to measure cholesterol levels in daily walkers across two age groups, over 40 and under 40, and compare these to cholesterol levels among nonwalkers in the same age groups. We might even create subgroups for gender. However, we would not consider past or future cholesterol levels, for these would fall outside the frame. We would look only at cholesterol levels at one point in time.

The benefit of a cross-sectional study design is that it allows researchers to compare many different variables at the same time. We could, for example, look at age, gender, income and educational level in relation to walking and cholesterol levels, with little or no additional cost.

However, cross-sectional studies may not provide definite information about cause-and-effect relationships. This is because such studies offer a snapshot of a single moment in time; they do not consider what happens before or after the snapshot is taken. Therefore, we can't know for sure if our daily walkers had low cholesterol levels before taking up their exercise regimes, or if the behaviour of daily walking helped to reduce cholesterol levels that previously were high.

Longitudinal study

A longitudinal study, like a cross-sectional one, is observational. So, once again, researchers do not interfere with their subjects. However, in a longitudinal study, researchers conduct several observations of the same subjects over a period of time, sometimes lasting many years.

The benefit of a longitudinal study is that researchers are able to detect developments or changes in the characteristics of the target population at both the group and the individual level. The key here is that longitudinal studies extend beyond a single moment in time. As a result, they can establish sequences of events.

To return to our example, we might choose to look at the change in cholesterol levels among women over 40 who walk daily for a period of 20 years. The longitudinal study design would account for cholesterol levels at the onset of a walking regime and as the walking behaviour continued over time. Therefore, a longitudinal study is more likely to suggest cause-and-effect relationships than a cross-sectional study by virtue of its scope.

In general, the research should drive the design. But sometimes, the progression of the research helps determine which design is most appropriate. Cross-sectional studies can be done more quickly than longitudinal studies. That's why researchers might start with a cross-sectional study to first establish whether there are links or associations between certain variables. Then they would set up a longitudinal study to study cause and effect.

37. quality of evidence ?

Evaluating the Quality of Evidence

Researcher has two questions in mind:

1. How relevant is the evidence?

2. How accurate and strong is the evidence?

Question of relevance is difficult – with the shift in focus, the relevance of evidence may change.

Accuracy is looked for: the implicit framework, particular details (that are required), and empirical generalizations.

38. Limitations of tri variable table (3)

Limitations

- Difficult to interpret if control variable has more than four categories.
- Total number of cases may be limiting factor because cases are divided into cells in partials. Thinning out of data. On average 5 cases per cell recommended.

39. Two type of phenomenology?

Types of Phenomenology

- Two approaches to phenomenology are highlighted in this discussion:
    - Hermeneutic phenomenology
    - Empirical, transcendental, or psychological phenomenology
    - Hermeneutical phenomenology describes research as oriented toward lived experience (phenomenology and interpreting the "texts" of life (hermeneutics) as available in blogs and tweets etc.
- Transcendental or psychological phenomenology is focused less on the interpretations of the researcher and more on a description of the experiences of participants.

40. what are the right of participants (3marks)

Rights of the participants

- No physical harm, discomfort, pain, embarrassment, or loss of privacy.

Follow three guidelines:

1. Explain study benefits.

2. Explain respondent rights and protections.

3. Obtain informed consent.

41. Three way of gaining research literature

- Computer: on line systems.
- Scholarly journals.
- Books – containing reports of original research, or collection of research articles. READERS or Book of Readings.
- Dissertations.
- Government documents.
- Policy reports and presented papers.
- Bibliographic indexes.

42. Parts of main body reports?

The makeup of the report – the report parts:

- Prefatory parts.
- Main body.
- Appended parts.

Prefatory parts

1. Title fly page.
2. Title page.
3. Letter of transmittal
4. Letter of authorization.
5. Table of contents
6. Executive summary (Synopsis):

- - Objectives
- - Results
- - Conclusions
- - Recommendations

Main body

- Introduction:
  - -- Background
  - -- Objectives
- Methodology.
- Results → can be divided into different areas.
- Limitations.
- Conclusions and recommendations
- References.
- Acknowledgements.

Appended parts

- Data collection forms (questionnaires, check list, interview guide, other forms).
- Detailed calculations.
- General tables.
- Other support material.
- Bibliography, if needed.

43. Importance theory of science

- *Theory as orientation.* Framework. Phenomenon may be studied in different ways. Narrows the range of facts to be studied. Study of football.
- *Theory as conceptualization and classification. Provides concepts.*
- *Theory in summarizing role.* Empirical generalizations.
- *Theory predicts facts.* Extrapolation.
- *Theory points gaps in knowledge.*

44. Difference between scale and index (3)

Scale is a measure to capture the intensity, direction, level, or potency of a variable. Arranges responses on a continuum. A scale can use single indicator or multiple indicators. Ordinal level.

Index is a measure in which researcher adds or combines several distinct indicators of a construct into a single score. Composite score.

45. Steps of report writing ? Also explain main body of report .(10)

Every report is custom-made, yet some conventions of format.

- Many companies and universities also have in-house, suggested report formats or writing guides that researchers should be aware of.

Report Format:

- The general plan of organization for the parts of a written or oral research report.

Tailoring the format to the project -- 2 reasons:

- To obtain the proper level of formality.
- To decrease the complexity of the report.

We shall look at the most formal type i.e. a report for a large project done within an organization or one done by a research agency for a client company. Usually bound with a permanent cover. May be hundreds of pages.

The makeup of the report – the report parts:

- Prefatory parts.
- Main body.
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Prefatory parts

7. Title fly page.
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- References.
- Acknowledgements.

Appended parts

- Data collection forms (questionnaires, check list, interview guide, other forms).
- Detailed calculations.
- General tables.
- Other support material.
- Bibliography, if needed.

Title fly page:

- Only the title appears on this page
- For the most formal reports, a title fly page precedes the title page.

Title Page:

- Title of the report. Give a brief but complete indication of the project purpose.
- The name/s of the person/s for whom the report was prepared. Titles and addresses to be given.
- The name/s of person/s who prepared it. Titles and addresses to be included.
- Date of release or presentation.

Letter of Transmittal:

- Included in relatively formal and very formal reports.
- Purpose to release or deliver the report.
- Serves to establish some rapport between the reader and the writer.
- The transmittal should not dive into report findings except in the broadest terms.

46. Challenges of phenomenology 5 marks

Challenges

- Phenomenology requires at least some understanding of the broader philosophical assumptions, and these should be identified by the researcher.
- The participants in the study need to be carefully chosen to be individuals who have all experienced the phenomenon in question, so that the researcher, in the end, can forge a common understanding.
- *Bracketing* personal experiences may be difficult for the researcher to implement.
- An interpretive approach to phenomenology would signal this as an impossibility for the researcher to become separated from the text.

47. What are the limitations of focused group discussion?

Observe verbal as well non-verbal communication. What are they saying? What does it mean to them? Empathize. Do not try to comment on everything that is said Control the timings unobtrusively. Summarize the main issues at the end of FGD. Check whether all participants agree. Thank the participants. Listen for the added comments after meeting has closed.

48. challenge faced in the narrative research 10

Challenges

- The researcher needs to collect extensive information about the participant, and needs to have a clear understanding of the context of the individual's life.
- It takes a keen eye to identify in the source material gathered the particular stories that capture the individual's experiences.
- Active collaboration with the participant is necessary, and researchers need to discuss the participant's stories as well as be reflective about their own personal and political background, which shapes how they "restore" the account.
- Multiple issues arise in the collecting, analyzing, and telling of individual stories.

49. use of null hypothesis?

Use of Null Hypothesis:

- Used for testing the research hypothesis
- Researchers give more importance to negative evidence. No relationship rather than a relationship i.e. Null hypothesis.
- Reject H0 and accept alternative.

50. Describe 2 specific role of exploratory research ?

- Become familiar with the topic. Develop well grounded picture of the situation.
- Develop tentative theories.
- Determine the feasibility of study.
- Formulate questions and refine issues for more systematic inquiry.
- Develop techniques and a sense of direction for future research

51. Brief explain the quantitative research .(3)

Quantitative research

- Quantitative research, on the other hand, explores descriptive analysis of characteristics through variables or answers questions about the relationships among variables.
- Quantitative research studies generally end with a summation of the verification process, which is a confirmation or disconfirmation of the hypotheses tested via deductive reasoning.
- Conclusively, the aim of qualitative research is discovery, while the aim of quantitative research is verification.

52. External Validity

- Even if the researcher eliminates all concerns for internal validity, external validity remains a potential problem.
- *External validity* is the ability to generalize experimental findings to real life situations.
- Without external validity, findings are of little use for both basic and applied research.
- Threats to external validity: Reactivity

Even if the researcher eliminates all concerns for internal validity, external validity remains a potential problem. External validity is the ability to generalize experimental findings to real life situations. Without external validity, the findings are of little use for both basic and applied research i.e we shall not be able to develop any theories that could be applicable to similar other situations.

53. How to locate research report .(5)

Locate Research Reports:

- Articles in scholarly journals.
- Locating the relevant articles is difficult.
- Many academic field have “abstracts” or “indexes” for scholarly literature.
- Look in reference section of library
- Also available on computer.

54. What should someone keep in mind while making a table research (5)

1. Give each table a number.

2. Give each table a title.

3. Label the row and column variables, and give name to each of the variable categories.

4. Include the totals of the columns and rows. These are called as marginals.

5. Each number or place that corresponds to the intersection of a category for each variable is cell of a table.

6. Missing information to be given under the table.

1. Give each table a number.
2. Give each table a title, which names variables and provides background information
3. Label the row and columns variables and give name to each of the variable categories.
4. Include the totals of the columns and rows. These are called *marginals.* They equal the univariate frequency distribution for the variable.
5. Each number or place that corresponds to the intersection of a category for each variable is a *cell of a table.*
6. The numbers with the labeled variable categories and the totals are called the *body of the table.*
7. If there is missing information, report the number of missing cases near the table to account for all original cases.

55. What researcher do in field .

1.Observes ordinary events and everyday activities as they happen in natural settings, in addition to unusual occurrences.

2. Becomes directly involved with people being studied and personally experiences the process of daily life in the field setting.

3. Acquires an insider's point of view while maintaining the analytic perspective or distance of an outsider.

4. Uses a variety of techniques and social skills in a flexible manner as the situation demands.

5. Produces data in the form of extensive, written notes, as well as diagrams, maps, pictures to provide very detailed descriptions.

6. Sees events holistically (as a whole unit) and individually in their social context.

7. Understands and develops empathy for members in a field setting, and does not just record 'cold' objective facts.

8. Notices both explicit (recognized, conscious, spoken) and tacit (less recognized, implicit, unspoken) aspects of culture.

9. Observes ongoing social processes without upsetting, or imposing an outside point of view.

10. Copes with high levels of personal stress, uncertainty, ethical dilemmas, and ambiguity.

56. Purpose of FGD

The purpose of FGD:

- To obtain in-depth information on concepts, perceptions, and ideas of the group.
- More than an question-answer interaction.
- Group members discuss the topic among themselves.

The purpose of an FGD is to obtain in-depth information on concepts, perceptions, and ideas of the group. An FGD aims to be more than a question-answer interaction (Focus group interview is different). Here the idea is that group members discuss the topic among themselves.

57. What is the degree of abstraction 2

Degree of Abstraction:

- Moving up the ladder of abstraction, the basic concept becomes more abstract, wider in scope, and less measurable.

Concepts vary in their level of abstraction. They are on a continuum from the most concrete to the most abstract. Very concrete ones refer to straightforward physical objects or familiar experiences (e.g. height, school, age, family income, or housing). More abstract concepts refer to ideas that have a diffuse, indirect expression (e.g. family dissolution, racism, political power)

58. How to conduct FGD? procedure

1. Preparation

Selection of topic, questions to be discussed (open ended).

Selecting the study participants:

- Purposive or convenience sampling.
- Similar background. Age, sex, status.
- 6-12 persons in a session.
- Contact the participants. Invitations.

Making physical arrangements.

2. Conducting the session:

- One of the members of the research team should act as 'facilitator' for the focus group. One should serve as 'recorder' (rapporteur).

3. Analysis of Results

- After each FGD the facilitator and recorder meet to review and evaluate the discussion.
- The full report is prepared using the participants own words, listing the key statements, ideas and attitudes.
- Additional questions are formulated if needed.
- Answers of different sub-groups are compared.
- The findings must be recorded in a coherent way.
- The most useful quotations should be selected.

4. Report Writing

- Start with a description of the selection and composition of the group and participants, and a commentary on the group process.
- Present your findings, following your list of topics and guided by the objectives of FGD.
- Include questions whenever possible, particularly the key statements.

59.What four dimensions are of research work?

Four main dimensions:

1. Purpose of doing research.
2. Intended uses of research.
3. How it treats time → time dimension.
4. The research techniques used

60. Difference between Interview vs. Survey Interview any three

Survey Interview	Field Interview
1. It has clear beginning and end.	1. The beginning and end are not clear. The interview can be picked up later.
2. The same standard questions are asked of all respondents in the same sequence.	2. The questions and the order in which they are asked are tailored to specific people and situations.
3. The interviewer appears neutral at all times.	3.The interviewer shows interest in responses, encourages elaboration.
4. The interviewer asks questions, and the respondent answers.	4. It is like a friendly conversational exchange but with more interviewer questions.
5. It is almost always with one respondent alone.	5. It can occur in group setting or with others in area, but varies.
6. It has a professional tone and businesslike focus, diversions are ignored.	6. It is interspersed with jokes, aside, stories, diversions, and anecdotes, which are recorded.
7. Closed-ended questions are common, with rare probes.	7. Open-ended questions are common, and probes are frequent.
8. The interviewer alone controls the pace and direction of interview.	8. The interviewer and member jointly control the pace and direction of the interview.
9. The social context in which the interview occurs is ignored and assumed to make little difference.	9. The social context of the interview is noted and seen as important for interpreting the meaning of responses.
10. The interviewer attempts to mold the communication pattern into a standard framework.	10. The interviewer adjusts to the member‟s norms and language usages.

61. Define hypothesis

- Hypothesis is a testable counterpart of proposition i.e. If variables refer to empirical reality then it could be testable. Therefore,

Hypothesis is a testable proposition

62.Plagiarism:

- In publications, presentations, writings the researchers explicitly identify, credit, and reference the author when they take data or material verbatim from another person's written work, whether it is published, unpublished, or electronically available.
- Do not present others' work as your own. Even the ideas have to be acknowledged.

63. types of defocusing

There are two types of defocusing.

a. The first is casting a wide net in order to witness a wide range of situations, people, and setting – getting a feel of the overall setting before deciding what to include or exclude.
b. The second type of defocusing means not focusing exclusively on the role of researcher. It may be important to extend one‟s experience beyond a strictly professional role.

64. Write the procedure of implementation in narrative research?

Procedures for Conducting Narrative Research

As a general procedural guide, the methods of conducting a narrative study do not follow a lock-step approach, but instead represent an informal collection of topics.

1. Determine if the research problem or question best fits narrative research. Narrative research is best for capturing the detailed stories or life experiences of a single life or the lives of a small number of individuals.

2. Select one or more individuals who have stories or life experiences to tell, and spend considerable time with them gathering their stories through multiples types of information. Stories are referred as "field texts." Research participants may record their stories in a journal or diary, or the researcher might observe the individuals and record field notes. Researchers may also collect letters sent by the individuals; assemble

3. Collect information about the context of these stories. Narrative researchers situate individual stories within participants' personal experiences (their jobs, their homes), their culture (racial or ethnic), and their historical contexts (time and place).
4. Analyze the participants' stories, and then "restore' them into a framework that makes sense. Restoring is the process of reorganizing the stories into some general type of framework. This framework may consist of gathering stories, analyzing them for key elements of the story (e.g., time, place, plot, and scene), and then rewriting the stories to place them within a chronological sequence.

Collaborate with participants by actively involving them in the research. As researchers collect stories, they negotiate relationships, smooth transitions, and provide ways to be useful to the participants.

65.Purpose of report writing?

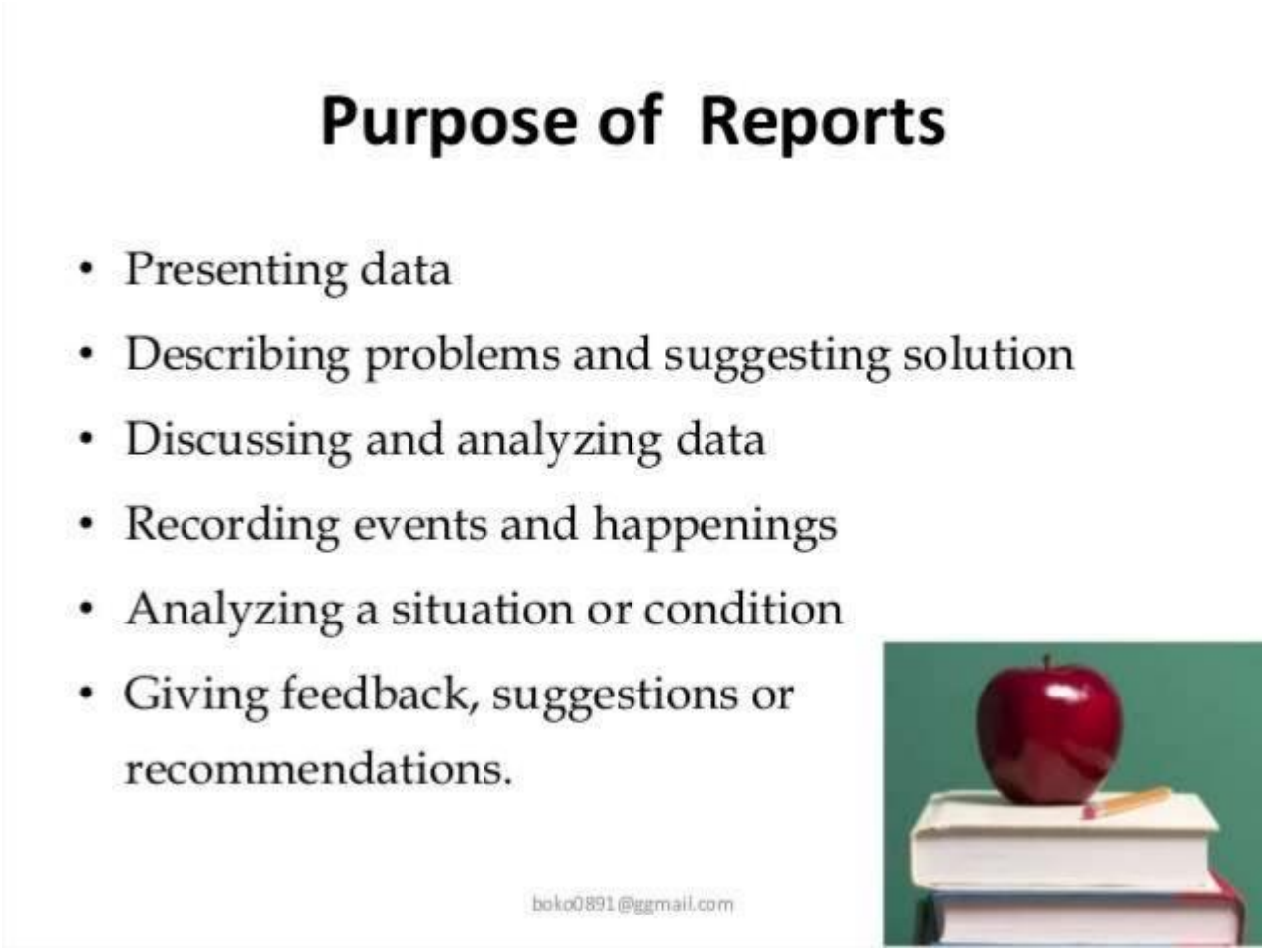
Purposes of a report A report is an objective and factual presentation in order to achieve some important purposes. These purposes are discussed below:

1. To require the essential information for decision- making.
2. Take important decision from the collecting information.

3. Express the neutral figure of any important matter.

4. To increase the movement of administration.

5. To increase direction and controlling.



66.How to present table 5 mark

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- If there is missing information, report the number of missing cases near the table to account for all original cases.

67. Three methods of conducting an experimant 5
68. Uses of theory in research
69. study concerning participant?
70. Role current record in historical study?
71. What come in mind of researcher while doing histograghy
72.